Chapter 11
Touristification of European Port-Cities: Impacts on Local Populations and Cultural Heritage

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Abstract Touristification of European port-cities is a contemporary process of globalisation in the age of the information society, adding cruise and marine specific dynamics to the promotion of cities as products and destinations for short-breaks, congresses or holidays. Port-cities have a long history of investment on the waterfront, adapting these spaces through at least three cycles since industrialisation, in a 50 years process of waterfront regeneration that started in the late 1960s. Touristification corresponds to a new (fourth) stage in a continuous port/city redevelopment process. Global tourism research reveals several undesirable impacts on cities, for example through gentrification (displacement) of local inhabitants or a change of the city's identity into a generic image, where living conditions are impacted by higher housing prices. Alongside the negative impacts of cruise tourism is the profile of this type of tourist, e.g. as part of the so-called "low-cost tourism". Confronted with unlimited growth of touristification and its negative impacts, major port-cities want to control this process. Effective monitoring tools, strong administrative coordination, and agile spatial planning and management instruments are determinant for port-cities to respond to the touristification process. Port-cities have struggled to orientate this process to define which types of tourism they want to promote or limit; cruises are part of the equation. In port-cities, touristification demands highly effective spatial planning answers, with inter-sectoral and trans-scale policy answers occurring simultaneously.

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11.1 Introduction

Touristification is an ongoing process in major European cities, as globalisation, the information society, and aviation market competition and its consequent low cost flights, have contracted physical distances, generalised access to travelling and promoted cities as products in the short-break, congress or holidays destination market.

Port-cities are naturally part of these global dynamics (Alemany and Bruttomesso 2011; Hein 2011; Andrade and Prieto 2014; Pallis et al. 2014), adding extra capacities to touristic destinations, as a result of their infrastructure specificities: the waterfront allows the expansion of this phenomenon to port areas, both thought the development of marinas and cruise destinations. As a result, the touristification of port cities generates a more complex discussion, within a theme that is already complex in these urban territories (Stewart et al. 2011; Roca Blanch 2014; Boland et al. 2017; Jones 2017; Papatheochari and Coccossis 2019).

Being a relevant financial income, that justifies the development of strategic approaches by city administrations, this phenomenon presents undesirable impacts in growing scales which are proportional to the success of the touristic destination, such as:

1. Gentrification, where local inhabitants are forced to abandon the city centre due to: (i) increased housing prices, in part associated with new forms of hospitality, such as the digital platforms—e.g. Airbnb; (ii) changes in local services—in type and in prices; and (iii) changes in the neighbourhood's occupancy, with increased presence of tourists, and night-time activity;
2. Gentrification of services and public facilities which, due to the increase prices in central areas, profoundly change the functional dynamics of cities, including phenomena's such as: (i) the transference of public facilities to other areas in the city, liberating former central plots and buildings to urban renewal; and (ii) the expulsion of traditional economic activities, which are unable to pay rents at the market prices of the central spaces in which they were located; and
3. Changes in the city's identity, with a tendency towards generalisation of a global image and living conditions, due to: (i) the repetition of international architectural languages, normalising the urban image; (ii) the tendency to replace local activities by global international companies in commerce and restoration—the McDonald's world; (iii) increased pressure on urban heritage, both due to over use of the major local monuments and the adaptation of several heritage buildings to touristic activities, due to their "charm"; and, (iv) the tendency to welcome global forms of touristic mobility, such as tuk-tuks, and scooters.

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As a result, major European cities can contribute to a wider public debate about the impacts of tourism, introducing new agendas and a wide range of local approaches. These agendas and approaches can result in effective local policies which are then undertaken and monitored, in order to observe, simultaneously, their effectiveness in the mitigation of negative impacts and measure possible negative impact on the tourism activity of the city.

Cities like Lisbon, Madrid, Barcelona, Venice, Amsterdam, and Berlin, have participated in this contemporary policy debate on touristification issues such as: How to regulate digital renting platforms, such as Airbnb? How to regulate housing prices to avoid a definitive gentrification of local inhabitants? Should cities allow new forms of mobility largely used by tourists, such as scooters? Should cities implement a tourism tax and what should be the amount? How high should the price of a ticket be to a major local monument, to a museum, or extra charges for meals in a restaurant? This latter might take into account physical limitations of the venue, methods to promote a positive benefit to local inhabitants (e.g. discounted prices), which may be needed, without introducing a local-tourist surcharge on services that might be seen as offensive to tourists or even be unconstitutional in law.

In addition to these questions, port-cities need to include the specificities of cruise touristification. These cities have invested for decades or centuries in their waterfront transformation (Andrade et al. 2012), developing successive generations of port infrastructure and regenerating abandoned areas, in successive (re)constructions that have been reactive to technological evolution and the transformation of society, requiring some maturation over time.

11.2 The Port-City Territories and the Technological Cycles

Existing literature (e.g. Ascher 2001; Costa 2013) associates the port-city transformation to the distinct cycles in the relationship between port-urban development and the advent of technological progress. In the economic and social sciences, there is some consensus about the definition of four technological generations since industrialization (Rifkin 2011; Schwab 2016; Case 2016); but in its territorial expression on port-cities, the 3rd and 4th industrial revolutions almost overlap in time and can be addressed as one (see for example Acciaro et al. 2019). As such, three moments of waterfront transformation can be identified and associated to the progressive adaptation of these territories to the technological cycles, which were central to support the city's productive processes and mobility (Costa 2013).

Three phases of industrialisation were observed by Costa (2013), corresponding to three cycles in the energy technologies and communications developments, which generated three urban paradigms in relation to the port-city. These phases are:

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1. The waterfront of the first industrialisation [mid to late 19th Century in England; end of the 19th Century in Portugal, for example], was associated with coal as energy source and communication technologies such as the mail, the telegraph and the hand-cranked phone.
   "*The new energy paradigm allowed the exponential development of collective mobility, knowing the advent of the railroad and the development of maritime and fluvial transport by steam, as well as industry, associated with the application of iron and steel*" (Costa 2013). As a result of technological developments, waterfronts needed "*new landfill areas* [new land areas recovered from rivers or the sea] *in the immediate vicinity of the city, to accommodate the port and the railroad, but also the industry, power plants and warehousing complexes and customs*" (Costa 2013), therefore generating new large, polluted, sealed territory that physically disconnected from the city despite the immediate vicinity; as well as an urban growth supported by a relationship of proximity between the residence and employment.
2. The waterfront of the second industrialisation [early 20th century to World War II], was associated with petrochemicals as an energy source and the generalisation of telephone, radio and television as a means of telecommunication.
   It allowed the expansion of the collective mobility network, namely maritime/fluvial and railways, and led to the increase of the territorial reach of collective accessibility through bus routes, reaching areas where railroad tracks did not reach. It also supported the advent of the automobile as an individual means of transportation, progressively broadening to reach any point of the territory, as well as air transportation, which significantly reduced time needed to travel long distances.
   These technological characteristics allowed, on the waterfronts, for territorial specialisation and the relocation of housing and industry, no longer dependent of the need for immediate neighbourhoods. The port and industry moved to a peripheral location, downstream in the new landfills of the twentieth century. "*The reverse of the technological paradigm shift was the decadence of the port and productive areas of the first industrialization, introducing, in different timings, the regeneration agenda*" (Costa 2013).
3. The waterfront of the third and fourth industrialisations, still frequently (and not correctly) named as "post-industrial waterfront", is associated with a new technology-based generational leap. The third industrialisation is generally associated with the computer, globalisation and post-carbon society; while the fourth industrialisation is developments in robotics and artificial intelligence (Ascher 2001), and is accompanied by a technological leap forward in communications and energy sources: the silicon chip and automation generations, promoting "*globalization, the exponential development of science in all areas (…) and the emergency of the post-carbon society, supported by the so-called "clean energies", which are gradually beginning to replace fossil fuels*".
   This contemporary cycle is associated to phenomena such as: "*(i) the relocation of the activities of the second industrialization, liberating vast territories of water front that we do not know how to face (Costa 2007); (ii) the bet on the*

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new technological industry …; (iii) metropolitan restructuring, supported by networks; (iv) the consolidation of recreational and leisure society, and; (v) the introduction of the climate change adaptation agenda" (Costa 2013). Once again, it is a moment of regeneration of former production areas.

Although having a background in the past, associated with the late XIX century maritime passenger transportation, or with recreational uses since the second industrialisation (Craig-Smith and Fagence 1995), it is in the scope of this contemporary waterfront where one can observe the touristification phenomenon of the port-city (White 2016).

As part of such regeneration processes, port-cities have invested significantly in waterfront transformation, and simultaneously in the revitalisation of their historic centres, and the improvement of their cultural offerings (Meyer 1999; Casariego 1999), all factors which are decisive today to their competitiveness in main cruise markets. However, the constant increase in the size of cruise ships, together with the incipient growth of low-cost tourism, have resulted in the "invasion" of cities by mass tourism, introducing conflicts with other uses, with local inhabitants, and with local identity (Tremblay and Chicoine 2011; Saidi 2012).

In this touristification process, global replaces local, causing a loss of identity, so that the main streets of all these cities offer the same shops of top brands, the same souvenirs, and even the same menus in restaurants. The transformation has been so excessive that previous inhabitants have left these places, which have then been converted into "theme parks", lacking in local activity and identity. This is a mass cultural tourism experience, where the city is a scene of monuments and museums and the visitor becomes a passive spectator (Pendlebury et al. 2009; Nicholas et al. 2009).

In the post-crisis context (following the global economic crises of the late 2000s and early 2010s), there has been limited scope for extensive publicly financed urban regeneration activities such as those that had been developed in the waterfronts during the previous thirty-plus years. Some affected cities have therefore begun to apply low-cost and short-term strategies to try to dispel the negative aspects of tourism for the sake of finding balance, and coexistence, between visitors and residents, to maintain or even maximise the benefits of tourism in the city in which they have invested so much. The "waterfront" recovery movement finds new paradigms, in an evolutionary process of urban regeneration that has lasted for more than 50 years.

11.3 The Evolution of Waterfront Regeneration

To understand the current context, it is necessary to briefly review the evolution of port-cities in recent times.

Over the last 50 years, since the waterfront development of Baltimore in the late 1960s/early 1970s, for example, port cities have undergone massive transformations.

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The appearance of the shipping container in the mid-1950s made some ports look for new locations that would allow them to be accessible to large container ships and be more competitive, leaving behind the docks of the old port in the centre of the city. These were then used as places of opportunity to recover the historical centres that, at that time, were in decline. Thus the "waterfront" phenomenon came about, which has evolved since the first American experiences in the late 1960s and 1970s. Although a range of literature has been written about these actions (Breen and Rigby 1994, 1996; Bruttomesso 1991; Marshall 2001; Meyer 1990, 1999; Carpenter et al. 2018), the classification made by Andrade (2012) allow for a general and simple overview of this complex phenomenon, distinguishing four major stages in the evolution of the waterfronts, as illustrated in Fig. 11.1 (Andrade 2012). These are identified below:

Firstly, the American experience, since the late 1960s, is viewed as the origin of waterfront transformations (Sieber and Timothy 1991). These early practices were based on a relaunch operation of the historic centre and of the financial district of the city, which were quite degraded. The strategy was based on placing tertiary facilities on those abandoned docks to reactivate the centre, but for that it was considered necessary to clean the place of the remnants of its industrial past, replacing them with shopping centres or leisure activities for example. However, the main success of those initial actions was in restoring the physical connection with the city, through the meticulous study of the immediate surroundings that they had to revitalise.

Secondly, European experiences, added a variety of uses to the American model, and emphasised residential use as the main protagonist. Conservation strategies were not enough for those cities to maintain the functions of an urban centre in their

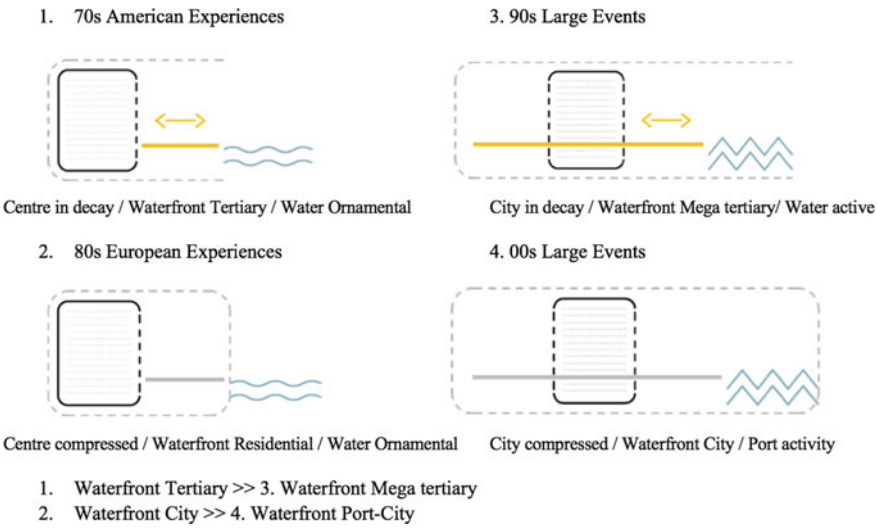

Fig. 11.1 Explanatory diagrams of the waterfront evolution. *Source* Andrade (2012)

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historic core and reuse strategies were activated (Pinder 2003). If, in the American model, the waterfront was an annex to the city of tertiary use, in the European case dock areas served to continue the city to the sea, increasing the miscegenation of uses that characterises the city, by those docks.

Thirdly, around the 1990s, the scale of the interventions increased. There was a boom in universal exhibitions and big events. Waterfronts became venues for these major international events, developing from the tertiary waterfront of American model, to mega-tertiary waterfront, which reactivated not only the historic centre, but the entire city.

Lastly, in the 21st century, a new stage appeared as a continuation of the previous one in terms of the competitiveness between cities, highlighting differences in their own identity. It prolongs the city to the sea by the docks, but no longer any city: it became a port-city. The port activity was maintained, as possible; the intervention scale was broadened, now encompassing long-term vision with horizons of 30 years; and its repercussion again affected the whole city, giving it back the character of a port-city.

For further information on the sustainability relationship between ports and cities, and on port-city redevelopment within the context of Europe's Circular Economy agenda, see also Carpenter and Lozano (2019), and Karimpour et al. (2019), which appear elsewhere in this volume.

By the 1990s, Jauhiainen (1995) suggested that these transformations should have more sensitivity to the local context, hence Falk (1992) and McCarthy (1998) pointing out the problem of the banal transferring of concepts from one city to another.

The phenomenon of waterfront reconstruction of the city in areas abandoned by port facilities, providing spaces of extraordinary value for their breadth and position, represented the "*peculiar success of the post-industrial city*" (Bruttomesso 2004), and is exemplified by many examples of cities that have transformed—and continue transforming—their port spaces, recovering a waterfront that for a long time was hidden by old port warehouses, for example.

In all these stages, the importance of actions to improve the urban quality of the city was maintained, each one trying to improve on the previous stage. If in the first, the physical integration of the actions was highlighted, in the second, the American mono-functionalism was broken in search of a miscegenation of uses, and a functional integration. This was improved in the third stage by combining local uses with global uses in response to these great events. In the fourth stage this was completed with the reinsertion of the port's activities into the lives of citizens through social integration. In this way, these last actions tend to maintain as much port activity as possible on the docks, coexisting with urban activities, both global and daily (auditorium, fish market, blue transport, university, cruises, offices etc.), forming the port part of the day to day lives of the inhabitants of the city (Andrade 2012).

With this awareness of the importance of the port as an element of identity of the city, we enter the contemporary port-city, in a period where not only the structure of the port space becomes important, but an absolute value is acquired through the recovery of those soft values of ports (Van Hooydonk 2007); those activities that

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are compatible with urban life. There are numerous port cities that have promoted activities related to tourism as an alternative port activity compatible with the city (McCarthy 1995, 1998). The cruise industry is located halfway between tourism and port activity (Capocaccia 2001). With the interventions carried out both in the port and in the city, these port cities have the necessary infrastructures and the cultural attraction to be part of the cruise routes.

In this way we identify a fifth stage of the Waterfront (Perea-Medina et al. 2018), in which these cities assume the role of 'tourist ports' (McCarthy 2003), discussed below.

11.4 The Tourist-Port Phenomenon: Opportunities and Threats

The cruise industry is one of the most dynamic and fastest-growing tourism sub-sectors (Sun et al. 2011), especially in the Mediterranean area, where cities present a large range of easily accessible and attractive assets for historical and cultural tourism (Gui and Russo 2011; Rodrigues and Notteboom 2013; Soriani et al. 2009; Castillo-Manzano et al. 2014).

As cruise tourism has increased in a rapid way in these cities, its impact on local development deserves special attention. As a result, over recent years, the literature on the negative and positive impacts of cruise tourism in port-cities at the economic, environmental, political and socio-cultural levels has increased significantly (Papathanassis and Beckman 2011; Bonilla-Priego et al. 2014; Brida and Zapata 2010; Klein 2011; MacNeill and Wozniak 2018).

Cruise ships are getting bigger, increasing the number of tourists that disembark in cities, attracted by their rehabilitated historic centres and their media museums. According to Legoupil (2013), a stronger port-city connection has been achieved, particularly in this direction, as the historic centre became a continuation of the waterfront and part of the "terrestrial itinerary" of thousands of people in a short period of time. Throughout the different stages of the waterfront redevelopment, the predominant direction in port/city integration was the approach of the citizen to his/her port, supported by its local and global uses and the extension of the urban transport network, with the port being part of the daily life of the citizens. However, today this reality has changed, due to the thousands of tourists who daily walk the waterfront towards the historical centre, taking over the historical fabric of the city.

Cruise tourism can offer great benefits for the city, not only economically (Figueira de Sousa 2001) but also in the three port-city dimensions (Andrade 2012): (i) the physical dimension—continuity of trips from the terminals to the historic centre (Triay 2001); (ii) the functional dimension—mix of uses in terminals with uses focused on citizens that generate synergies (Bruttomesso 2001; Matvejevic 2001); and (iii) the social dimension—generation of new jobs and cultural activities. Simultaneously, cruise tourism is growing the number of cities where the effort

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to clean up the city and turn it into an attractive cultural repository has reversed negative impacts, while the emergence of the touristification phenomenon, especially in the Mediterranean basin (due to the scale of the network of its port-cities and to the natural, historical and cultural context) has allowed the city to strengthen its position in the cruise market (Rodrigues and Notteboom 2013).

Much has been written about the negative aspects of cruise tourism (Figueira de Sousa 2001; Shaw 2001; Marshall 2001; Rosa-Jimenez et al. 2018; McCarthy 2018), mainly about the vagueness of the real economic impact in the city, the pollution of ships, congestion or danger of the built heritage, among others. Additionally, critiques of the consumption profile of this type of tourist, who looks for specific and intensive touristic products and does not sleep on the city, are opposed to the impacts of the other types of touristification on the housing market, inflating market prices and affecting significantly the local residents.

The cruise industry is a complex tourism product and its management is equally complicated (Castillo-Manzano et al. 2014), generating conflicts with the city and its inhabitants while contributing to its economy with a lower income generated compared to other types of tourism or to the citizen himself (Legoupil 2013), since passengers tend to sleep, eat, drink and spend on board the cruise-ship.

Over many decades, cruise ships have greatly increased in size and capacity, and cities had to receive several cruise ships at once, making it easy to find cities with 20,000 cruise passengers disembarking in unison. This, together with the growth of low-cost tourism, has resulted in an increasing number of European port-cities which have a wide cultural offer and attractive, rehabilitated and easily accessible historic centres, being "invaded" by mass tourism, putting in danger the identity of these places (Bruttomesso 1999; Alemany 2006; Grindlay et al. 2018).

These specific waterfront negative aspects, as identified previously, refer to the general process of major city's touristification, generating a scale increase of impacts in port-cities. Through such excessive transformation due to mass touristification, cities are confronted with the danger of becoming "theme parks", displacing local inhabitants and activities and lacking local identity: a fabricated cultural tourism where the city becomes a scene of monuments and museums and the individual becomes a passive spectator (Zukin 1996).

While almost twenty years ago this danger was anticipated in the built heritage (Marshall 2001), it has today been amplified to the city itself. The tourist interest of a city is no longer only in its built heritage, but also in its inhabitants, its customs, its gastronomy, its local culture, and the daily activity of the citizens in the urban space. Mass tourism is contributing to the death of this essence, leaving only a scenario of a life that no longer exists; and the lives of its local residents and its daily activities are progressively being displaced to other locations.

Simultaneously, this same cruise industry is transforming ports in "non-places", global transit spaces serving their function as it happens in airports, metro stations or shopping centres (Augé 1995).

It is increasingly necessary to propose a series of measures that can maximise the benefits of cruise tourism on port-cities, while mitigating its negative impacts and achieving coexistence between visitors and residents.

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11.5 The Tourist-Port in the Port-City Planning and Management

As McCarthy (2008) stated, to maximise the net benefits of tourism development in port-cities, it is necessary to carefully manage possible conflicts between tourism and local development, such as housing inflation, heritage conservation, transportation services, garbage, and such conflicts must be considered in decision-making, which should include a wide range of interests, including the local communities' ones.

In a period of rapid change (Ascher 2001), effective monitoring tools, strong administrative coordination, and agile spatial planning and management instruments are determinant for port-cities to adapt to new realities in time. The changes generated by the touristification process are happening at a rapid rate, and the conscience on what is really happening is needed to support weighted policies, in order to simultaneously defend the local communities from its negative impacts, and promote the positive synergies of the quality tourism.

From the empirical research undertaken for this chapter, it has been identified that the common touristification processes of major cities may have major negative impacts resulting in the displacement of local inhabitants and in the change of living habits and activities. These occur as a result of (i) the inflation of housing prices; (ii) the changes in the local services and in the neighbourhood's frequency; (iii) the gentrification of services and public facilities; (iv) the change in the city's identity; and (v) the welcoming of global forms of touristic mobility. In port-cities these impacts are increased.

Very frequently, the impact is not so much relevant to the waterfront territory, where it tends to result from the regeneration of former port and/or industrial areas located by the river or by the sea; but directly on the city central areas, which welcome these specific "tourists per hours" in addition to the regular ones. In this case, the pressure is mainly places on the transport system—public, car (taxis, Uber, etc.) and tourist buses—, on the most relevant services, museums and monuments and on the services—shopping and some restoration. Specifically, port-cities that can achieve a position at the start or at the end of cruises routes can benefit from one-night or longer hotel stays, although this situation demands an international airport, well connected and with an sufficient capacity.

In port-cities, touristification demands, therefore, highly effective spatial planning answers, with inter-sector and trans-scale policy answers occurring simultaneously. Some examples (among many) include:

1. Port infrastructures needs to quickly be adapted to the specific demands of the cruise industry, in quantitative and qualitative terms, with the most competitive ports offering anchorage to cruise ships at the city centre and side-by-side with the most attractive urban areas, generating possible conflicts with the city—mobility volumes, breaking of viewpoints, negative impacts on the city/water visual connections, introduction of "walls of steel" where before the city used to have the water;

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2. International airport planning and works are directly linked to the city position as a starting or ending point on the cruise routes;
3. The most important monuments and museums are limited in terms of capacity and the city needs to diversify, by promoting new attractions to capture the tourist attention, preferably also diversifying its local and regional location;
4. The most relevant local services for the city's identity (traditional shops, restaurants, etc.) should be protected, particularly the historical ones, and become object of public policies, enlarging the contemporary heritage concept, but also the demands for public financing, which must result from tourism taxation—a classical contemporary policy debate on major tourist cities today;
5. The public transport system management have to integrate this specific tourist demand, particularly on the specific routes linking the cruise terminals to the most important tourist destinations, answering to the conflicts generated with local users;
6. Traffic management, frequently already a local problem for cities at peak hours, needs to integrate specific routes for tourist buses and the demand for taxis, Uber and others, exactly at the same period of time—when the cruise ship arrives and leaves the city;
7. Over-population of city centres generated by the cruise passengers, which is not only a pedestrian problem of density of public space occupation in a specific time, but also is one of the causes of gentrification, generating the transformation of the uses of places which changes the focus totally towards the tourist and eliminates its use by local residents;
8. All the types of gentrification due to the increase of prices (housing, shopping, restoration, public services, etc.) must be addressed by the port-city, in order to retain the local inhabitants' access to them—and, with that, promote a local feeling of antipathy against tourism; and
9. Local housing policies became a major political topic in local elections and needs to be directly coordinated with tourism land use regulations, for example for as accommodation through Airbnb, in hostels and other non-conventional hospitality regulation.

Therefore, it is no longer sufficient to ensure that a specific sector spatial plan includes the tourism-related activities. The dynamic of planning and management itself may become central to the problem. None of the described impacts is stable in time; neither can they be addressed by a single plan or by a single entity. On the contrary, each of these problems verifies a different evolution every day; and the answer to each one is no longer isolated, but must be considered as part of the system; this implies that the larger vision of the entire system should never be lost, and obliges compromise by multiple institutional, associative and private actors, at different territorial levels.

A primary objective is the maintenance of the distinctive character of the city, enhancing local identity and culture (Richards 1996; Urry 1990). An identity is

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physical (referring to buildings, streets or services), and also human (referring to the specific habits of local inhabitants); it cannot obviously be frozen in time. The right balance between the natural evolution of the city, which is desirable, and the control of the negative impacts of touristification, is the most difficult point to achieve.

It is crucial to effectively combine policies focusing on the local population and their well-being, implying a physical, functional and socioeconomically benefit, with others focused on the correct orientations for competitiveness of tourism (Del Chiappa et al. 2018; Fadeeva 2005; Hritz and Cecil 2008; Jamal and Stronza 2009; Vernon et al. 2005). It is a sensitive balance that, if well addressed, can produce sustainable benefits for the city in general. These policies cannot lose the focus on the local, for their appropriate conservation and protection (not excessive but not insufficient), while allowing for the viability of tourist activity in the long term (Dimitrovski and Crespi Vallbona 2018). Supporting local identity allows the creation of a specific brand that enhances the identification and differentiation of the destination as a memorable tourist experience (Ritchie and Crouch 2003), but also defends the local inhabitants.

In scenarios where the demand for cruise tourism continues to grow, alternatives to address its impacts on the port-city can be synthesized through two opposite extreme policies: (i) to limit the number of passengers disembarking on the city (Johnson 2002), by defining a limit capacity to the port-city; or, (ii) to diversify, promoting alternative tourist resources accessible from the destination ports in coordination with local interests.

In the context of the post-economic crisis (from around 2013–2015 onwards, depending on country or region), when our societies cannot repeat the large and profound urban regeneration waterfront operations that occurred in the 1990s, new forms of intervention are taking place; they are more participatory, reusing spaces initially not qualified as heritage. In different cities, industrial buildings that have been embedded in the urban fabric and devoid to use are being occupied for local activities, guaranteeing a living memory of urban life in the area. They are interventions requiring low financial investment in existing spaces and structures, with realistic expectations, and offer local solutions to the challenges of urban planning. This is an example of a neighbourhood-building approach that uses short-term, low-cost, controlled-scale interventions and policies to catalyse long-term change (Glick 2012).

Attending to the industrial past of these threatened port-cities, it is still common to find these old industrial buildings in disuse. In the post-crisis economic situation of western countries, with the lack of public and private financial resources to implement large urban regeneration operations in the port-city interface spaces, the existent situation provides an opportunity, and the reuse of buildings is becoming a form of redevelopment. It is a way to value local identity and to protect the city and port heritage, by counteracting the destructive effect of gentrification (displacement of local inhabitants and activities) that the contemporary phenomenon of tourism provokes in port-cities.

New heritage approaches to the existing urban spaces might be a form to ensure the identity of port-cities through local activity, surpassing classical concepts such as the monument or the thematic park and (re) creating more genuine spaces,

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simultaneously achieving a better coexistence between local inhabitants and visitors and their interest activities; an approach that can be extended to public spaces, as life among buildings is richer, more stimulating, and more rewarding than any combination of architectural ideas (see Gehl 1987).

11.6 Conclusions

Touristification of European port-cities is a contemporary process of globalization in the age of the information society, adding the cruise and marine specific dynamics to the promotion of cities as products in the short-break, congress or holidays destinations. These cities have to manage its infrastructure specificities along the waterfront and its urban surroundings and accessibilities; but also, to manage its local impacts, generating a complex discussion.

Global tourism reveals several undesirable impacts in major cities, such as: (i) the gentrification of local inhabitants (as proposed by Stewart et al. 2011), due to the inflation of the housing prices and the changes in the local services, and changes in the neighbourhood's make-up; (ii) the gentrification of services and public facilities; and (iii) the change in the city's identity into a global image and living conditions, generating an over pressure urban heritage. As a result, an intensive public debate occurs about the impacts of tourism, creating pressure to the development of local policies to mitigate the negative impacts of touristification, although not killing the touristic activity itself, which is still understood as a very desirable economical pillar of development.

Port-cities add to this reality the extra specificities of maritime touristification. These cities have a long history of investment on the waterfront, adapting these spaces to at least three cycles since industrialization (as discussed by Costa 2013), in successive (re)constructions of (re)new(ed) port infrastructure and regenerated urban areas. Today's port-city touristification takes part, therefore, of a 50 years process of waterfront regeneration which can be understood through five periods, as described above (see Andrade 2012). It corresponds to a new stage on a continuous port/city process.

As the cruise industry is one of the fastest-growing tourism sub-sectors, especially in the Mediterranean area, its local impacts deserve special attention. However, they cannot be addressed in isolation, in the light of the general touristification process of those cities. Cruise ships are growing continuously in size and number, while increasing numbers of tourists disembark in cities; as a consequence new port-city connections area also growing, expanding the waterfront to the city centre as part of the "terrestrial itinerary" of thousands of people in a short period of time.

Along the negative impacts of cruise tourism, such as the vagueness of the real economic impact in the city, the pollution of ships, the congestion or danger of the built heritage, the profile of this type of tourist entered the core of the discussion. This type of tourist looks for specific and intensive tourism products and does not sleep in the city; although in the opposite perspective it can be argued that such a

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tourist does not contributes to the inflating market prices that strongly affect local residents. The argument here is that this type of tourism might be part of the so called "low-cost tourism", which charges the city facilities and infrastructures and amplifies the negative impacts without generating the adequate financial incomes, can shift the discussion orientation. Confronted with the unlimited growth of touristification and of its negative impacts, major port-cities want to control this process, in order to not become the new Venice, a "theme park" of original buildings without local inhabitants and local life.

That is when the planning and management process of the tourist port-city enters into the scene, with the main objective of maximising the net benefits of tourism development, while carefully managing the existing conflicts with local development and local population through collaborative policies. Effective monitoring tools, strong administrative coordination and agile spatial planning and management instruments are necessary for port-cities to respond to the touristification process. Port-cities may struggle to orientate this process according to their specific circumstances; namely by defining which types of tourism they want to promote, and which type they want to limit, and cruises are part of the equation. In port-cities, touristification demands highly effective spatial planning answers, with inter-sector and trans-scale policy answers occurring simultaneously, as the several examples referred to above illustrate.

Contemporary problems need answers with contemporary methods and techniques. However, ultimately, everything is about people and the economy. To guarantee the sustainable development of a port-city under a touristification process is a very difficult task. Every one of those cities are trying in their own way. The process requires a collaborative policy between all the involved agents, working together to plan and manage the development of tourism, but also to defend the interests of local inhabitants with appropriate policies, and to reduce the community's concerns; to collaborate with destination communities to promote attractions, new itineraries, local identity and the authenticity of the destination and educate passengers on how to minimize the negative impacts that their behaviour might generate in the host destination.

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